

Same and different are not additive presupposition triggers
Reply to Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024

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Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024) propose a new account of *same* and *different* that aims at explaining why both items trigger the same set of external, internal and comparative-like readings as illustrated in (1)-(3), but *same* is more constrained in its distribution as shown in (4)-(7).¹

- (1) Daiwen read a book. Bao read {the same/a different} book. [external]
(2) Every girl read {the same/a different} book. [internal]
(3) Ornette Coleman played {the same/a different} tune {as/than} Don Cherry.
[comparative-like]
(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 445, 468)
- (4) Daiwen didn't read *War and Peace* but {she read a different/#Bao read the same} book. [negated antecedent]
(5) Daiwen praised *War and Peace* but Hien read {a different/#the same} book. [parallel antecedent]
(6) Daiwen caught a big fish and she caught {?a different/#the same} fish without any fishing equipment. [distinct antecedent]
(7) Ornette Coleman played {a different/#the same} tune {than/as} this one. [comparative-like]
(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 456-458, 468)

The core innovation of Mikkelsen & Hardt's (2024) analysis consists in hypothesizing that *same* and *different* contain an additive presuppositional element TOO akin to overt *too*, which takes independent scope. According to them, this hypothesis explains why (1) is felicitous in the absence of *too*, while the same sentence without *same* (or *different*) is not, as shown in (8).

- (8) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the book #(too).
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the same book (#too).
(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 447)

Furthermore, independent, contrast-based constraints on the scope of TOO derive the distributional differences between *same* and *different* in cases like (4)-(7), as we will review below: while TOO can take DP scope with *different*, TOO must take TP scope with *same*.

Mikkelsen & Hardt's 2024 analysis presents several virtues. First, it derives the three types of readings exhibited by *same* and *different* in a uniform fashion unlike most previous analyses (Carlson 1987, Barker 2007, Brasoveanu 2011, Sun 2021, i.a.); a uniform analysis is supported by the strong crosslinguistic tendency to use the same word for all readings of *same* (Charnavel

¹ Some of these judgments will be questioned later on in the paper. In particular, it will be shown in section 2.2 that *the same* can be made felicitous in sentences like (6) or (7) in appropriate contexts (see, e.g., (73) and (86)).

2015). Second, it accounts for (little discussed) empirical properties of *same* and *different* such as island constraints and parallelism effects. Third, it captures analogies between *too* and *same*.

Left unexplained, however, as acknowledged by the authors, is why additive presuppositions would arise with these particular items – *same* and *different*. In this reply, I would like to challenge Mikkelsen & Hardt’s (2024) analysis and show that the answer to this question is ultimately the key to overcoming these challenges.

More specifically, I will show (in section 1) that all three virtuous aspects of Mikkelsen & Hardt’s 2024 additive analysis mentioned above are limited by serious problems: analogies between *same/different* and *too* are only partial; the uniformity of their account rests on some non-trivial stipulations; the empirical properties of *same/different* are thus (in part) stipulated, rather than derived.

I will further argue (in section 2) that the desirable consequences of an additive analysis can be obtained by an alternative type of hypothesis (previously proposed in Charnavel 2015, cf. Heim 1985, Matushansky 2011), which does not face its problems.

1. Problems with an additive account of *same* and *different*

1.1. The costs for uniformity

1.1.1. Decompositional analysis

To capture their similarity in distribution and range of readings, Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: 449-450) uniformly decompose *same* and *different* into two parts (cf. Sun 2021): an additive presuppositional element TOO and a (non-)identity predicate.

- (9) a. $[[\text{same}]] = \text{TOO IDENT}(i)$
 b. $[[\text{different}]] = \text{TOO NOT-IDENT}(i)$

The (non-)identity predicate comes in two versions: a relational version in (10)a and (11)a, and a property version in (10)b and (11)b when IDENT receives an index.

- (10) a. $[[\text{IDENT}]] = \lambda x. \lambda y. x = y$
 b. $[[\text{IDENT}_i]] = \lambda x. x = u_i$
 (11) a. $[[\text{NOT-IDENT}]] = \lambda x. \lambda y. x \neq y$
 b. $[[\text{NOT-IDENT}_i]] = \lambda x. x \neq u_i$

Like overt *too*, TOO attaches to a host H and requires an antecedent P in surrounding discourse, which must be true and differ from H in a way that is foregrounded while otherwise sharing the same background material. For example in (8)a, *too* is adjoined to the host TP *Bao read the book*; and since *Bao* is focused and *War and Peace* is a book, this TP contrasts appropriately with the antecedent TP *Daiwen read War and Peace*; *too* thus presupposes that someone other than Bao read *War and Peace*.

- (12) $[_{\text{TP-Ant}} \text{Daiwen read War and Peace}]. [_{\text{TP-H}} \text{Bao}_F \text{read the book}] \text{ too.}$
 $[[\text{Daiwen read War and Peace}]] \neq [[\text{Bao read the book}]]$
 $[[\text{Daiwen read War and Peace}]] \in [[\text{Bao}_F \text{read the book}]]^F$

[[Daiwen read *War and Peace*]]^c=1

Furthermore, (8)a is degraded in the absence of *too* (see Sæbø 2004, Amsili & Beyssade 2006, Winterstein & Zeevat 2012, i.a.). Following previous literature, Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024) suggest that this is due to the *Maximize Presuppositions!* principle (Heim 1991). They further argue that the hypothesis that *same* generates the same presupposition as *too* provides a natural explanation for their novel observation that (8)b with *same* is felicitous in the absence of *too*: it is because *same* incorporates TOO that its presence contributes to satisfying *Maximize Presupposition!* (and *same* does not change the propositional content of the host since it introduces an identity predicate).

1.1.2. Scopal analysis

A crucial aspect of Mikkelsen & Hardt's 2024 hypothesis rests on the scopal properties of TOO: TOO can take scope independently of *same/different* so as to satisfy the contrastiveness condition required by the presupposition it triggers. Thus, (8)b can be represented as follows:

(13) Daiwen read *War and Peace*. TOO [_{TP} Bao_F read the IDENT_i book].

Here, TOO scopes out of the adjectival position to attach to the TP. As explained in (12), the presupposition it triggers can thereby be satisfied because this TP (including focused *Bao*) appropriately contrasts with the TP of the previous discourse *Daiwen read War and Peace*.

In the case of *different*, however, Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that TOO need not move to the TP level but can remain at the DP level:

(14) Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read TOO [_{DP} a NON-IDENT_{i-F} book].

Drawing on the observation that *different* can be focused, Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that the DP appropriately contrasts with the previous DP *War and Peace*, since *War and Peace* is a book part of the context, which necessarily has some property different from the non-identical property (at least the self-identical property).

- (15) a. [[*War and Peace*]] ≠ [[a NON-IDENT_i book]]
 b. [[*War and Peace*]] ∈ [[a NON-IDENT_{i-F} book]]^F
 c. [[*War and Peace*]] is part of the context c

According to Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024), the different scopal possibilities of TOO with *same* and *different* explain why *same* is more constrained in its distribution as shown in (4)-(7) repeated below:

- (16) Daiwen didn't read *War and Peace* but {she read a different/#Bao read the same} book.
 [negated antecedent]
 (17) Daiwen praised *War and Peace* but Hien read {a different/#the same} book.
 [parallel antecedent]
 (18) Daiwen caught a big fish and she caught {?a different/#the same} fish without any
 fishing equipment. [distinct antecedent]
 (19) Ornette Coleman played {a different/#a same} tune {than/as} this one.
 [comparative-like]

In all these sentences, the presupposition triggered by TOO cannot be satisfied in the case of *same*. In (16), either the TP it attaches to (*Bao_F read the IDENT_i book*) does not appropriately contrast with the antecedent due to the presence of the negation (if we construe the antecedent as *Daiwen didn't read War and Peace*), or the antecedent is not true in the context (if we construe the antecedent as the TP below the negation *Daiwen read War and Peace*). In (17), the TP host (*Hien_F read the IDENT_i book*) does not appropriately contrast with the antecedent (*Daiwen praised War and Peace*) due to the different verbs. The problem raised by (18) is that the host TP (*she caught the fish without any fishing equipment*) and the antecedent TP (*Daiwen caught a big fish*) denote the same event and thus do not contrast. Finally, (19) is infelicitous because the DP host and the DP antecedent denote the same tune; in fact, it's for that reason that Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that TOO must always move out of the DP to take TP scope with *same* (as in e.g. (13)); otherwise, the host can never appropriately contrast with the antecedent.

1.1.3. The key stipulation for unifying *same* and *different*

The main idea of Mikkelsen & Hardt's hypothesis to derive the distributional similarities between *same* and *different* while accounting for their differences thus consists in assuming the same presuppositional part in them (i.e., TOO) with different scopal possibilities. Under a fully parsimonious account, the different scopal possibilities of TOO with *same* and *different* should derive from their intrinsic differences, namely to the meaning of their other part (IDENT vs. NON-IDENT), which would impose different contrastive constraints on the host.

This is not straightforwardly the case of Mikkelsen & Hardt's account, neither at a semantic level, nor at a pragmatic level. Under their analysis, the key reason why *different* and *same* induce different scopal possibilities for TOO (thus triggering different discourse effects in (4)-(7)) is because *different* is focused (while *same* need not). Focus on *different* makes the DP containing it (e.g., *a different_F book*) a possible host for TOO, because any book in the context (e.g., *War and Peace*) can then belong to its focus value (a set of books with some property), given that all books necessarily have some property that can alternate with *different* (at least the self-identical property, as mentioned by Mikkelsen & Hardt). In the absence of focus on *different*, *War and Peace* could not appropriately contrast with *a different book* whose focus value would be a singleton set.

But focus marking on *different* is not well independently motivated. While focus on *Bao* is expected given the contrast with *Daiwen* (as mentioned by Mikkelsen & Hardt: fn. 13), no explicit contrast with a previous term justifies contrastive focus on *different*. To corroborate their claim, Mikkelsen & Hardt thus consulted with 6 native English speakers and note that "all 6 preferred or accepted accent on *different*". But this observation remains insufficient (even beyond the lack of details and narrow scope of this informal survey). It needs to be checked whether the absence of accent on *different* (which appears possible since Mikkelsen & Hardt only report a preference for or acceptance of the accent) correlates with a degradation of examples (4)-(7) involving *different*.

Furthermore, it is not clear why similarly, focus on *same* could not license contrast with a DP antecedent. In the presence of focus on *same*, the focus value of the DP containing it (e.g., *the same fish* in (18)) could include the denotation of an antecedent DP (e.g., *a big fish*): just as a

property can be found to contrast with *different* (e.g. self-identical), a property can presumably be found to contrast with *same* (e.g., different from other). It seems that Mikkelsen & Hardt do not mention focus on *same* under external readings because according to them, the DP containing *same* cannot be a possible host for TOO since it denotes the same individual as the antecedent DP and thus fails to contrast with it. But given that Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: 449) assume the presuppositions induced by TOO to be propositional, which requires a claim of existence at the DP level, it is not clear why, for example, *the same book exists* cannot contrast with *War and Peace exists*. In other words, following their DRT-style notation, if it is about truth conditions and not reference, why could $H = [u_j \mid \text{book}(u_j), u_j \neq u_i]$ and $P' = [u_i \mid \text{book}(u_i), \text{WP}(u_i)]$ contrast, but not $H' = [u_j \mid \text{book}(u_j), u_j = u_i]$ and $P' = [u_i \mid \text{book}(u_i), \text{WP}(u_i)]$? Second, even assuming that contrast at the DP level relies on reference, appropriate contrasts should be found under type (vs. token) readings of *same* (e.g. *the same fish* and *a big fish* can denote different tokens of the same type of fish). But Mikkelsen & Hardt neither discuss the distinction between type and token interpretations of *same*, nor the presence or absence of accent on *same* under external readings; yet, this would be especially relevant since Mikkelsen & Hardt report *same* to be accented under internal readings (e.g., *every book read the same_F book*).

Next, even granting that *different* (vs. *same*) is focused, thus licensing DP scope of TOO, the hypothesis that *different* incorporates TOO has no independent motivation. On its own, focus on *different* triggers an effect very similar to DP scope of TOO: adjunction of TOO to a DP containing (focused) *different* implies that there is another individual of the same type (e.g., a book) in the context with some (e.g., self-identical) property; similarly, the mere absence of focus on the head noun (e.g., *book*) implies that a book is given in the context, and given the presence of the indefinite article, the given book has to be different. When TOO takes DP scope, it is therefore vacuous, and there is no reason for positing it beyond imposing uniformity between *same* and *different*.

The same reasoning holds for comparative constructions like (7): in the case of *different*, TOO with DP scope simply triggers the presupposition that there is another individual of the same type in the context (e.g., another tune); but this presupposition is necessarily satisfied by the meaning of *different*. As for internal readings (e.g., *every boy read a different book*), we will see in section 1.1.4 that the presupposition triggered by TOO needs to be accommodated in non-trivial ways, which does not independently justify its incorporation either.

In sum, in the absence of an independent motivation for the incorporation of TOO in *different*, the uniformity of the analysis for *same* and *different* is in fact stipulated.

The main idea behind Mikkelsen & Hardt's scopal hypothesis nevertheless remains valid: due to the intrinsic meaning of (non)-identity, while *different* can easily induce a contrast at the DP level, it is much more difficult (though not impossible, as I will argue in section 2.2.1) for *same*, which thus tends to induce contrast at the TP level instead. But my goal is to show that this should not be captured by assuming incorporation of TOO. Beyond the problems we have just seen with *different*, this hypothesis raises further problems when we carefully compare the distribution of *too* and that of *same* and *different* as we will see in section 1.2. But first, I will show in the next section that the uniformity across readings is also partly stipulated.

1.1.4. Stipulations for unifying all readings

Mikkelsen & Hardt aim at unification on two dimensions: between *same* and *different*, and between all readings triggered by these items. We have just discussed that the unification between *same* and *different* based on TOO incorporation lacks independent motivation. The unification between all (external, internal and comparative-like) readings also requires some stipulations.

First, we saw in (10)-(11) that Mikkelsen & Hardt posit two different lexical entries for both *same* and *different*: a relational one and a non-relational one. They use the former for comparative-like readings (with an overt complement such as *than this one* in (7) or *as Don Cherry* in (3)) and the latter for internal and external readings. Under this approach, comparative-like readings are thus not fully unified with the other readings.

Second, internal readings of *same* and *different* require some stipulations regarding accommodation of the presupposition of TOO as in (20) (cf. (2)).

(20) Every boy read a different book. (Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 459)

In this case, Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: 459-461) hypothesize TP scope of TOO below the raised quantifier (and focus on *different* as before); and working in a DRT framework, they assume that the presupposition of TOO is accommodated as shown in (21) where the accommodated material is underlined in (b).

- (21) a. [Every [x | boy x] [TOO [y | boy x, book y, read (x,y), $y \neq z$]]]
b. [Every [x u | boy x, $u \neq x$, boy u, book z, read(u,z)] [y | boy x, book y, read(x,y), $y \neq z$]]

This requires several non-trivial assumptions. First, Mikkelsen & Hardt adopt Pasternak's 2020 *Interpreted Lower Restrictor Hypothesis* to justify that *boy* is interpreted both in the restrictor and in the nuclear scope. Second, they stipulate two distinct (boy) variables in the restrictor following Hardt & Mikkelsen's (2020) assumption that an accommodated variable must be distinct from currently defined variables. Both assumptions allow them to ultimately obtain two predications of distinct boys. Third, they assume some flexibility in terms of variable binding in the construction of an accommodated presupposition (bound variables in the host can be renamed in the antecedent, and free variables in the host can receive a binder in the antecedent). Fourth, they assume accommodation of the presupposition to the restrictor (vs. nuclear scope or previous context).

Several of the aforementioned assumptions lack clear independent motivation. For instance, the stipulation of two distinct boy variables in the restrictor, though crucial to the analysis, does not seem to receive independent support. But perhaps the most problematic assumption is that of accommodation to the restrictor. First, it has been shown that TOO usually resists accommodation in the sense that it requires an explicit antecedent. For example, the presupposition of TOO cannot be satisfied in (22) uttered out-of-the blue by the mere knowledge that other people must be having dinner in New York. The content of the presupposition must have been mentioned recently or be part of what Kripke (2009) calls the active context.

(22) # Sam is having dinner in New York tonight too. (Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 464)

Under the above analysis, this active context can however surprisingly be accommodated in the restrictor of *every*. But in fact, as acknowledged by Mikkelsen & Hardt, this is impossible with overt *too* as shown in (23) which cannot be interpreted as inducing universal quantification over the book.

(23) # Every boy read the book too. (Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 466)

Mikkelsen & Hardt tentatively argue that the infelicity of (23) may be due to the fact that *too* cannot adjoin to the appropriate TP level (namely below the quantifier within the nuclear scope), because it syntactically takes matrix scope, and would thus need to lower at LF to adjoin to the nuclear scope. But note that the same holds with *also*, which is claimed to have the same properties as *too*, but can syntactically attach lower:

(24) # Every boy also read the book.

Beyond *too*, note that accommodation to the restrictor has been questioned, as acknowledged by Mikkelsen & Hardt: in sentences like (25), Beaver (2002) and Beaver & Zeevat (2007) argue that the relevant interpretation (i.e. *every man who has a wife loves her*) cannot be obtained by mere accommodation, but is dependent on previous context.

(25) # Every man loves his wife. (Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 463, van der Sandt 1992: (53))

Second, as also acknowledged by the authors, there are alternative accommodation sites that are in principle available (see van der Sandt 1992, i.a.), namely the nuclear scope as in (26)a and the top level as in (26)b.

(26) a. every [x| boy(x)] [y u z | boy(u), book(z), read(u, z), book (y), read(x, y), x≠u, y≠z]
b. [u, z | boy(u) book(z) & read(u, z)] ; every [x|boy(x)] [y| book (y), read(x, y), y≠z]
(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 464)

Accommodation to the nuclear scope however yields a reading that is too weak: (26)a is true as long as for every boy, there is some boy that reads a different book. As acknowledged by Mikkelsen & Hardt, this would incorrectly predict the sentence to be true under a scenario where nine boys read *War and Peace* and a single boy read *The Color Purple*. To account for this, Mikkelsen & Hardt appeal to van der Sandt's observation that there is a general preference for accommodation to a higher position when there is a choice of accommodating to a higher or lower position. But it remains unclear why the above reading would be unavailable in that case: if the higher accommodation site is only preferred (vs. required), the lower one should still be adopted when the higher one makes a sentence false (given a general preference for truth over falsity).

As for accommodation to the top level as in (26)b, it would give rise to an external reading: every boy read a book that is not equal to a certain book read by a certain boy. Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that this reading is unavailable just like any external reading in the absence of an explicit previous context: according to them, external readings cannot be accommodated because TOO requires a salient alternative as illustrated in (22) above; the reason why the

presupposition of TOO can however be accommodated to the restrictor in (21) is that the accommodated variable is an element of the set that is the domain of *every boy* and can therefore be considered to have been introduced into the context. But especially in view of the unavailability of accommodation with *too* or *also* in (23)-(24), this does not seem very convincing.

Finally, Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that the island effects previously observed with internal readings (see Carlson 1987, Moltmann 1992, Charnavel 2015) as they exemplify in (27) (cf. Carlson 1987) are derived by the hypothesis that TOO must move to the TP level under internal readings as mentioned above, and is thus constrained by islands.

(27) * Every gorilla saw a woman who fed {the same/a different} man.

(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 468)

Given that under external readings, TOO must move to the TP level only with *same*, Mikkelsen & Hardt further predict that island effects only obtain with *same* under those readings. According to them, the contrasts in examples (28)-(29) show that the prediction is borne out.

(28) Yifeng knows why Bao helped her next-door neighbor and Daiwen knows why she helped { ??the same/a different} neighbor.

(29) Bao will be happy if the youngest student wins the lottery and Daiwen will be happy if { ??the same/a different} student wins the lottery.

(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 467)

To confirm the contrasts, Mikkelsen & Hardt performed an informal pilot study with over sixty respondents who were asked to rate sentences from 1 (perfect) to 5 (unacceptable). They gave an average score of 2.4 to example (28) with *same* and a score of 1.9 to example (28) with *different*. Similarly with example (29), the version with *same* received a score of 2.04, while the score with *different* was 1.4. Even assuming that these (small) differences in scores are statistically significant (which is not mentioned in the paper), it might be objected, as acknowledged by Mikkelsen & Hardt, that the sentences with *same* received an intermediate status; in fact, they mention that similar examples involving overt *wh*-movement received notably worse scores in their survey. Mikkelsen & Hardt therefore suggest that this intermediate status is due to the fact that the violation is a pragmatic (vs. syntactic) one since TOO is only required to move to produce a host whose presupposition can be satisfied. The remaining question that is not addressed by Mikkelsen & Hardt, however, is why internal readings with *same* or *different* (such as (27), which they note *) seem to trigger worse violations than external readings with *same* (such as (28)-(29), which they note ??). It would be interesting in this respect to perform the same survey they did with external readings, checking the judgments with *same* and *different* with internal readings in comparison with overt *wh*-movement, in the presence (vs. absence) of islands. In section 2.1, I will propose an alternative analysis that captures these differences and retains the main intuition behind the TOO hypothesis, but does not rest on TOO incorporation.

1.2. A fallacious analogy with *too*

There are various reasons for abandoning the hypothesis that *same* and *different* incorporate TOO.

1.2.1. Problems with the motivation for TOO incorporation

First, remember that Mikkelsen & Hardt's main motivation for positing TOO incorporation with *same* is the similarity between (8)a and (8)b repeated below.

- (30) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the book #(too).
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the #(same) book.

Their reasoning goes as follows: *too* is obligatory in cases like (30)a due to *Maximize Presupposition!* (cf. Heim 1991), given that the second sentence has the same propositional content with or without *too*; (30)b also involves a second sentence with the same content, but is fine in the absence of *too*; therefore, *same* (the only addition in (30)b as compared to (30)a) must incorporate TOO.

As partly acknowledged by Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: 447, fn. 3), there are several difficulties with this reasoning. First, we do find cases where *too* is not obligatory although it could add a presupposition and thus presumably be required to satisfy Maximize Presupposition.

- (31) a. Who read *War and Peace*? Daiwen read it. Bao read it. Mary read it.
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Then, Bao read it.

The existence of cases like (31)a-b weakens the argument based on (8)a vs. (8)b: the observation that *same* makes the sentence felicitous without *too* does not entail that TOO has to be lexically incorporated in *same*. Examples (31)a-b show that other reasons can presumably license the absence of *too*, and that an account solely based on *Maximize Presupposition!* is therefore too strong.

Second, the co-occurrence of *too* and *same* is not redundant as shown in (32) contra Mikkelsen & Hardt's claim based on (33).

- (32) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the same book. Li read the same book too.
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the book too. #Li also read the book too.

- (33) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. #Bao read the same book too.
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. #Bao also read the book too.

(Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: 448-449)

It is true that *same* and *too* seem to be redundant in (33)a, just like *also* and *too* in (33)b, thus yielding infelicity. But crucially, (32)a shows that this is not always the case, while co-occurrence of two additive particles (with the same level of scope) as in (32)b is always redundant. This suggests (as I will argue in section 2.2.2) that the reason for redundancy in (32) is not the presence of *too* in *same*.

Third, we observe that other items than *too* or *same* can make the continuation felicitous in cases like (30) as acknowledged by Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: fn. 3):

- (34) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read a different book.

- b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read a similar book.
- c. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read a longer book.

For the case of *different* in (34)a, we saw that Mikkelsen & Hardt do also assume TOO incorporation. But they specify that such incorporation cannot be motivated by *Maximize Presupposition!* because the continuation in (34)a does not have the same propositional content as the one in (30)a. In this case, they thus assume TOO incorporation on general grounds, for reasons of uniformity with *same*, as we discussed.

The same should presumably hold for (34)b and (34)c, and Mikkelsen & Hardt claim to be open to the possibility of positing TOO incorporation for other elements such as *similar* or *longer*. In fact, assuming focus on these elements could satisfy the presupposition triggered by TOO, as we discussed for the case of *different*, as long as we can accommodate an alternating property in the antecedent; this is easy under Mikkelsen & Hardt's approach, which is based on the idea that the self-identical property should be always available as holding of all individuals (note however that under a more restrictive view on contrast as in, e.g., Buring 2008, accommodation may be harder). This implies that many elements should be endowed with an implicit TOO. The hypothesis of TOO incorporation in *different* – and potentially many other elements like *similar* – is thus problematic because of its vacuity: it does not serve *Maximize Presupposition!*, and as we saw in section 1.1.3, it does not even add anything as compared to mere focus on *different* (which is required for positing TOO). I will suggest another (more economical, in my view) hypothesis yielding a similar effect in section 2.2.2.

1.2.2. Misanalogies between *different/same* and *too*

The hypothesis of TOO incorporation in *different* is further challenged by a striking difference with overt *too*: while Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that TOO can take DP scope with *different*, such scope is unattested with overt *too*. In this respect, Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: fn. 10) seem to suggest the contrary when mentioning that the different attachment sites for overt *too*, illustrated in (35), support the hypothesis that *different* incorporates TOO because they mirror the possible interpretation sites of *different*.

- (35) a. Bao, too, read it.
- b. Bao read it too.

But in fact, *too* takes TP scope in both (35)a and (35)b. What the position of *too* in (35)a may reflect is the position of the focused element. In other words, it is important to distinguish between scope and focus association: in both cases, *too* takes TP scope and focus associates with *Bao*; its overt position may reflect the former or the latter.

This is supported by the fact that assuming DP scope for *too* would give rise to massive overgeneration. Let's for instance suppose that *too* scopes over *Bao* in (35)a. For *Bao* to contrast with its DP antecedent (e.g. *Daiwen*), it needs to be focused. But then, the only condition for the antecedent to belong to the focus value of *Bao* is to be an individual. Thus, the only requirements for *too* to be licensed at the DP level would be the existence of an individual in the context. This is so weak that *too* would be predicted to be available each time a DP is focused.

It suffices to consider the case of focus constructions such as (36)a-b to see that this prediction is incorrect.

- (36) a. Daiwen is happy. Only/even Bao (#too) read *War and Peace*.
b. Daiwen is happy. It is Bao (#too) that read *War and Peace*.

Even when only part of the DP is focused as in (34)a, DP scope of *too* gives rise to overgeneration. For instance, this hypothesis predicts that the only condition for *a long_F book too* to be licensed (just like for *a different_F book too*) is the existence of a book in a context with another (contrasting) property than *long*. (37) shows that this prediction is incorrect.

- (37) Daiwen has recommended this short book. But Bao wants to read a long book (#too).

All this supports the (standard) hypothesis that *too* always takes propositional scope and cannot take DP scope. This considerably weakens Mikkelsen & Hardt's hypothesis. If we want to keep TOO and *too* alike, this implies that *different* does not incorporate TOO (which is vacuous anyway) under external readings, but only *same* does. But then, the parallel behavior of *same* and *different* under internal readings is not captured anymore, since internal readings require TP scope of TOO for both *same* and *different*, in order to trigger the relevant accommodation and to predict island effects; in the absence of TOO incorporation, internal readings of *different* are not explained any more. Further remember from (23)-(24) that internal readings are impossible with overt *too* or *also*. The only way out, then, seems to be to assume that TOO is distinct from *too* in being allowed to take DP scope and in licensing accommodation to the nuclear scope of quantifiers. This makes the account much less parsimonious than it seemed.

The conclusion that TOO cannot be the same as overt *too* is further supported by comparative-like constructions such as (3) and (7) repeated below.

- (38) Ornette Coleman played {a different/#the same} tune {than/as} this one.
(39) Ornette Coleman played {a different/the same} tune {than/as} Don Cherry.

Mikkelsen & Hardt argue that TOO takes DP scope in (38) (which explains why it is infelicitous with *same*), but TP scope in (39). But (40)-(41) show that overt *too* is unacceptable or infelicitous in those constructions in any position.

- (40) Ornette Coleman played a different tune (*too) than this one (#too).
(41) Ornette Coleman played the same tune (*too) as Don Cherry (#too).

Mikkelsen & Hardt's analysis thus requires positing a new specific additive element TOO, which is quite different from overt *too*. Added to the problems with uniformity reviewed in the previous section, this reveals that this account is not so parsimonious after all.

Instead, I would like to briefly show in the next section that an existing previous account (Charnavel 2015) can capture all the properties that Mikkelsen & Hardt aim at capturing in a more parsimonious and uniform way, by taking the above comparative constructions as the basic structure for *same* and *different*.

2. How a comparative account can overcome the problems

The core idea of Charnavel's 2015 analysis is to analyze *same* and *different* as comparatives of individuals (in the spirit of Heim 1985). As mentioned by Mikkelsen & Hardt, this analysis shares several crucial properties with their account: it aims for uniformity (between internal, external and comparative-like readings, and between *same* and *different*); it relies on different scopal possibilities; it analyzes comparative constructions by using relational lexical entries for *same* and *different*.² But Mikkelsen & Hardt reject Charnavel's account on two main grounds: it requires an extensive postulation of silent structures, and it does not address the central novel phenomena they address, including parallelism effects and the analogies with *too*. I here want to show that first, the silent structures Charnavel (2015) posits are independently motivated and ultimately lead to fewer postulations than an additive account. Second, Charnavel's analysis can straightforwardly address parallelism effects and the analogies with *too*. Third, it thereby addresses the general question that Mikkelsen & Hardt leave for future research, namely why additive presuppositions would arise with lexical items like *same* and *different*. In a nutshell, Charnavel's account implies that it is the relational and comparative nature of these items that yields effects similar to additive presuppositions. Furthermore, this straightforwardly explains (without requiring extensive postulation of TOO incorporation) why other relational or comparative items like *similar* in (34)b and *longer* in (34)c exhibit similar behaviors.

2.1. Motivating silent structures in Charnavel's comparative account

As mentioned by Mikkelsen & Hardt, Charnavel (2015) analyzes external and internal readings as roughly represented in (42)-(43), where expressions in italics are covert; X is anaphorically interpreted as *Frida* in (42) and reciprocally as *each other* in (43). In (42), *different* takes an implicit DP complement like a relational adjective; in (43), *different* takes an implicit comparative clause like a comparative.

(42) Lucie watched *Frida* yesterday. As for me, I watched a different movie (*from X*).

(43) Each critic watched a different movie (*than X watched*). (Charnavel 2015: 130)

Unlike Mikkelsen & Hardt's account (which requires two different lexical entries, see section 1.1.1), Charnavel's account can thus analyze all readings using the same relational meaning for *same* and *different* (i.e. basically (10)a and (11)a).

Furthermore, the silent structures hypothesized in (42)-(43) are independently motivated for other elements like comparatives (which take both clausal and phrasal complements, or only clausal (elided) ones, depending on analyses, see, e.g., Lechner's 2020 review) and relational elements (which take phrasal complements). Kennedy (1997) and Kennedy & Merchant (2002), among many others, routinely assume ellipsis of (parts of) comparative clauses in both predicative and attributive comparatives. Beck (2000), on which Charnavel's 2015 partly builds, explicitly assumes that German *verschieden* can take a covert reciprocal complement both

² While mentioning the analogy of their account with Charnavel (2015) on this point, Mikkelsen & Hardt build on Sun (2021) and Hanink (2021)'s accounts for their specific proposal.

under its predicative and under its attributive uses, just like relational adjectives like *similar* or *separated*.

As illustrated below, *same* and *different* mostly resemble comparatives in taking both clausal and phrasal complements (or only clausal (elided) ones), which can be implicit, but also (some) relational items in licensing phrasal complements and reciprocity.

First, external readings also occur with comparatives like *longer* in (44) and relational elements like *similar* in (45) (cf. (34)b-c), suggesting a uniform analysis for all cases. Given that comparatives and relational elements uncontroversially take arguments, parsimony entails that *same* and *different* should also be analyzed as relational under all readings (not just when they occur with overt comparative complements, as proposed by Mikkelsen & Hardt).

(44) Lucie watched *Frida* yesterday. As for me, I watched a longer movie (*than X*).

(45) Lucie watched *Frida* yesterday. As for me, I watched a similar movie (*to X*).

Second, elliptical clauses as in (43) are independently attested with comparatives as in (46)b, motivating the hypothesis of elided comparative clauses in sentences like (43).

(46) a. Lucie watched a different movie than Paul (*watched*).

b. Lucie watched a longer movie than Paul (*watched*).

The only specificity of (43) as compared to (46) is that the DP remnant (*Paul* in (46)) is covert in (43) and interpreted as a reciprocal. This is not licensed for comparatives in general because reciprocity requires a symmetrical meaning that comparatives of inferiority or superiority lack; but Charnavel (2015: 150) observes that pseudo-reciprocal interpretations are available with comparatives in the presence of *each* implying succession as in (47).

(47) a. Je l'aime un peu {plus/moins} chaque jour.

'I like her a little {more/less} every day (*than I like her each other/next day*).'

b. Ce joueur devient {meilleur/plus mauvais} à chaque match.

'This player gets {better/worse} at every game (*than he is at each other/next match*).'

Moreover, equatives (marginally) license an internal reading as in (48); as mentioned by Charnavel (2015: 149-150), the intermediate status can be attributed to the standard 'at least' meaning ascribed to them, implying that a symmetrical meaning is only obtained by implicature.

(48) ?Chaque fille a mis une robe aussi élégante.

'Each girl put on a dress as elegant (*as each other put on*).'

Furthermore, a reciprocal meaning is fully licensed by plural relational elements as in (49), suggesting that a covert reciprocal DP complement is independently motivated.

(49) J'ai acheté trois robes similaires.

'I bought three similar dresses (*to each other*).'

Note that the parallel with (49) further allows a unified analysis for internal readings of *same* and *different* with plurals, which are not treated by Mikkelsen & Hardt: they acknowledge (in

fn. 21) that their analysis of internal readings is restricted to cases involving distributive quantification and thus have to leave cases involving plurals such as (50) for future research.

(50) a. Les critiques ont vu des films différents.

‘The critics watched different movies (*from each other*).’

b. Paul et Claire ont vu des films différents.

‘Paul and Claire watched different movies (*from each other*).’

(Charnavel 2015: 136)

Under Charnavel’s analysis building on Beck’s 2000 analysis of German *verschieden*, the different interpretations of (50) are straightforwardly derived as long as different pragmatic covers are taken into account (see Schwarzschild 1996): different partitions of the movies can be pragmatically determined. For instance, the movies can be divided according to their kinds (in which case (50)a means that the critics watched movies of various kinds) or according to their viewers (in which case (50)a means that each critic watched a different movie).

To support the hypothesis that the implicit element part of the complement of *same* and *different* can receive an underspecified interpretation depending on context, Charnavel (2015) provides independent examples of similar underspecification.

(51) (*Speaking of a group of students*)

a. Chacun a dit qu’ils étaient malades.

‘Each one said that they were sick.’

b. Chacun espère qu’ils iront à son enterrement.

‘Each one hopes that they will come to his funeral.’

(Charnavel 2015: 140)

The pronoun *ils* (‘they’) receives an underspecified interpretation in (51)a, which only requires that every student said something about the sickness of people: every student may have said that some salient people were sick, that he was sick himself, that all the (other) students were sick or only some of them (including himself or not). (51)b further illustrates that a strict reciprocal interpretation is also clearly available: the salient reading is that each one hopes that the others will come to his funeral. Similarly, we observed that the implicit element part of the complement of *same* or *different* can be interpreted as an anaphoric pronoun (external reading available in (42) as explicitly mentioned, but also in (43) and (50)), as a reciprocal (internal readings like (43) or (50)); we can further observe that just like *ils* (‘they’), it can receive a vague interpretation (e.g. in (50) which, for instance, does not constrain a strict distribution of the movies across each critic) or a reflexive interpretation as in (52).

(52) Par rapport à la semaine dernière, chaque enfant est différent aujourd’hui.

‘As compared to last week, each child is different today (*from himself*).’

(Charnavel 2015: 133)

In sum, the hypothesis that *same* and *different* take phrasal or clausal complements which can be implicit and involve an underspecified element, receives independent support.

Furthermore, the specific hypothesis that *same* and *different* take an implicit comparative clause under internal readings as in (43) is further supported by islands effects as argued by Charnavel

(2015). First, internal readings cannot obtain when *different* or *same* occurs in an island, whether the DP remnant is overt as in (53) (i.e., in comparative-like constructions for Mikkelsen & Hardt) or not as in (54) (i.e., under internal readings for Mikkelsen & Hardt); (55) illustrates that the same holds for comparatives (see Kennedy 2002, i.a.). Charnavel's analysis implies that the island constraint is violated both by the wh-movement required in the elided comparative clause and by the movement of the DP containing *same/different/comparative* that is necessary to resolve antecedent containment deletion (cf. degree movement).

- (53) #Luc is angry *because* Anne beat a different person than Paul. [~~*is angry because Anne beat~~]

Intended interpretation: the person such that Luc is angry because Anne beat her is different from the person such that Paul is angry because Anne beat her.

- (54) #Every player is angry *because* Anne beat a different person.

Intended interpretation: for each player x, there is a person y such that x is angry because Anne beat y.

- (55) #Luc is angry *because* Anne beat a better player than Paul. [~~*is angry because Anne beat~~]

Intended interpretation: the player such that Luc is angry because Anne beat her is better than the player such that Paul is angry because Anne beat her.

(Charnavel 2015: 148)

Although they do not discuss it, Mikkelsen & Hardt could derive island effects in the same way in comparative-like constructions like (53); but they need to appeal to TOO movement to derive them under internal readings like (54). Under Charnavel's account, all island effects are derived uniformly.

Second, internal readings are unavailable when what Charnavel (2015) calls the licenser (i.e. the correlate of comparatives in (56)-(57) or the quantified binder in (58)) occurs in an island (but *same*, *different* or the comparative does not). This comes from the fact that the licenser cannot move out of the island: when it is a (focused) correlate (*Paul* in (56) and (57)), the impossibility of movement fails to license the identity condition on ellipsis; when it is a quantifier, it fails to bind the indefinite DP involving *different*.

- (56) A different person is angry *because* Anne beat Luc than Paul.

Intended interpretation: the person that is angry because Anne beat Luc is different from the person that is angry because Anne beat Paul.

- (57) A more important person is angry *because* Anne beat Luc than Paul.

Intended interpretation: the person that is angry because Anne beat Luc is more important than the person that is angry because Anne beat Paul.

- (58) A different person is angry *because* Anne beat every player.

Intended interpretation: for each player that Anne beat, there is a different person who is angry because of it.

(Charnavel 2015: 147)

Although these facts are not discussed in Mikkelsen & Hardt, they could presumably be analyzed in the same way since the distributive quantifier also needs to bind the indefinite DP

containing *different* under their analysis (see section 1.1.4). In sum, it is not necessary to assume TOO movement to derive the island effects under internal readings and in comparative-like constructions, thus further undermining the hypothesis of TOO incorporation.

But Mikkelsen & Hardt observe novel island effects under external readings like (28) repeated below or (29), which are not discussed in Charnavel (2015).

- (59) Yifeng knows why Bao helped her next-door neighbor and Daiwen knows why she helped { ??the same/a different } neighbor.

Recall that in order to capture the contrast between *same* and *different* (2.4. vs. 1.9 on a scale from 1 – perfect – to 5 – unacceptable), Mikkelsen & Hardt hypothesize that TOO can raise to the DP level with *different*, but must raise to the TP level with *same*, thus violating an island in (59); they further attribute the intermediate status of the sentence with *same* to the pragmatic status of the violation, TOO being only required to move to produce a host whose presupposition can be satisfied. But as we saw, the problem faced by this account is that this does not explain the contrast between island effects under external readings (which seem weak) and under internal readings (which seem strong).

Charnavel's 2015 analysis, however, can capture this contrast in the spirit of Mikkelsen & Hardt's hypothesis: instead of supposing two different scopes for TOO, it can be assumed that *same* and *different* take different types of implicit complements, a phrasal complement for *different*, a clausal complement for *same*:

- (60) Yifeng knows why Bao helped her next-door neighbor and
Daiwen knows why she helped a different neighbor (*than X*).
(61) Yifeng knows why Bao helped her next-door neighbor and
* Daiwen knows why she helped the same neighbor (*as X knows why she helped wh-neighbor*).

While the implicit complement of *different* is anaphorically resolved, *same* implicitly takes an elided comparative clause (including an implicit anaphoric remnant), where movement of *wh-neighbor* violates a *wh*-island, just as in (62).

- (62) *Everyone knows why Bao helped {the same/a different} neighbor (*as X knows why Bao helped wh-neighbor*).

Furthermore, the reason why (59) with *same* is less degraded than (62) with *same* or *different* is that the phrasal complement is also possible for *same* in (59):

- (63) Yifeng knows why Bao helped her next-door neighbor and
Daiwen knows why she helped the same neighbor (*as X*).

But (63) is degraded as compared to (60) because there are simpler alternative formulations to (63), which make it pragmatically odd.

- (64) a. Yifeng knows why Bao helped her next-door neighbor and Daiwen also knows why she helped her.
b. Yifeng and Daiwen know why Bao helped her next-door neighbor.

In other words, it is not obvious in this sentence why it is relevant to use *the same neighbor as Yifeng's next-door neighbor* rather than just *Yifeng's next-door neighbor* or *her*, which all denote the same referent. This question, however, does not arise with *different*.

In the next section, I will generalize this explanation to all differences attributed to DP vs. TP scope of TOO by Mikkelsen & Hardt. This will show that Charnavel's analysis can derive all novel facts noticed by Mikkelsen & Hardt, so that TOO incorporation, which we saw requires stipulations, is in fact not needed.

2.2. Deriving Mikkelsen and Hardt's central phenomena under Charnavel's comparative account

2.2.1. Parallelism effects

First, recall from section 1.1.2 that under Mikkelsen & Hardt's analysis, the different scopal possibilities of TOO with *same* and *different* explain why *same* is more constrained in its distribution as shown in (4)-(7) repeated below:

- (65) Daiwen didn't read *War and Peace* but {she read a different/#Bao read the same} book.
- (66) Daiwen praised *War and Peace* but Hien read {a different/#the same} book.
- (67) Daiwen caught a big fish and she caught {?a different/#the same} fish without any fishing equipment.
- (68) Ornette Coleman played {a different/#the same} tune {than/as} this one.

Under Charnavel's approach, we can instead argue that given that these cases would require a phrasal complement, the infelicity of *same* results from a pragmatic violation of the maxim of manner: in each case, there are alternative simpler formulations.

- (69) Daiwen didn't read *War and Peace* but Bao read it.
- (70) Daiwen praised *War and Peace* but Hien read it.
- (71) Daiwen caught a big fish and she caught it without any fishing equipment.
- (72) Ornette Coleman played this tune.

Mikkelsen and Hardt (2024: fn. 27) reject this alternative analysis (applied to (68)) suggested to them by Jessica Rett (p.c.) on the grounds that maxim violations typically result in implications that give rise to special interpretations (Rett 2020); but according to them, (68) doesn't give rise to a special interpretation distinct from (72), but to infelicity.

This is challengeable: for example, (72) can be acceptable under conditions that make *same* relevant. This is the case if *same* and *this one* are contrastively focused, thus inducing relevant contextual alternatives (and thus relevant Questions Under Discussion) as exemplified in (73):

- (73) [Context: let's imagine an experiment where the participants hear two recorded tunes which can be identified and pointed at, for example because a green light comes on when the first tune is being played, and a red light comes on when the second one is being played. Then, they hear tunes played live by various people and their task is to decide how the live tune compares with the two recorded tunes they heard. Each live tune can be identical to or different from either of the two recorded tunes.]

(*Pointing at the green light*) Ornette Coleman played the same tune as this one.

In this scenario, it is perfectly felicitous to utter *the same tune as this one* because due to focus on *same* and *this one*, there are three relevant alternatives (*the same tune as that one, a different tune as this one, a different one as that one*) that cannot be induced by simpler formulations such as *this one* or *it*.

Further note that *same* can be more easily made relevant under type (vs. token) readings, which are not discussed by Mikkelsen & Hardt.

(74) (*Showing one of the exhibit cars*) Do you have the same car as this one?

Same is felicitous in (74) because the question is not about whether the interlocutor owns the exhibit's car itself, but a car of the same type. Here, the simpler formulation *Do you have this car?* makes the type reading less salient (albeit marginally accessible too).

In sum, phrasal complements of *same* are much more restricted than phrasal complements of *different* because unlike *a different one than X, the same one as X* often denotes the same referent as *X*, and the use of the longer formulation with *same* must thus be made relevant in context for the maxim of manner to be obeyed; otherwise, pragmatic oddity obtains.

The same reasoning, I argue, can apply to parallelism effects under external readings (e.g. (65)-(67)). An implicit complement of *same* is felicitous only if the expression with *same* is made relevant as compared to simpler alternative expressions. This is straightforward when *same* takes a clausal complement: for instance, *the same book (as Daiwen read)* in (8) clearly does not provide the same information as *it* referring back to *War and Peace*, although they have the same denotation. This is less straightforward when *same* takes a phrasal complement: *the same book (as War and Peace)* does not seem to provide much more information than just *it* referring back to *War and Peace*. That said, just as in the case of overt phrasal complements, covert phrasal complements of *same* can be made relevant in certain contexts, for example in (75) involving a type reading or in (76) and (77) involving contrastive focus on *same*.

(75) The exhibit car is splendid! Bao is lucky to own the same {one/car} (*as the exhibit car*).

(76) Daiwen read a different book than the book recommended by the teacher. Bao read the same one (*as the book recommended by the teacher*).

(77) How similar to this method was the method you used? I used exactly the same method (*as this method*).

Thus, parallelism effects can be derived without postulating TOO incorporation and movement, but adopting Charnavel's generalized comparative analysis of *same/different*. This approach replicates the different scopal effects of TOO (DP vs. TP level) by implying different possible sizes of complements for *same* and *different* (i.e. phrasal or clausal); and just like DP scope of TOO is unavailable with *same* because the DP containing *same* and its antecedent do not contrast, a phrasal complement for *same* is generally infelicitous because of the availability of

simpler alternatives giving rise to an identical meaning.³ However, Charnavel’s approach makes better predictions in cases like (75)-(77) where the context makes the use of *same* relevant with a phrasal complement; it correctly predicts these examples to be felicitous while Mikkelsen & Hardt’s hypothesis predicts them to be infelicitous because the host of TOO (*the IDENT book*) and its antecedent (e.g. *the book recommended by the teacher* in (76)) have the same denotation.

2.2.2. Analogies with *too*

It remains to explain how the analogies with *too*, which motivate Mikkelsen & Hardt’s analysis, can be accounted for under an analysis like Charnavel’s. We have seen in section 1.2.2 that overt *too* is in fact not fully analogous with TOO; in fact, TOO exhibits a quite distinct behavior from *too* in crucial respects, which undermines Mikkelsen & Hardt’s analysis. Nevertheless, *same* remains analogous to *too* in some respects, and this has to be explained under an approach that does not incorporate TOO. In particular, why does (8)b repeated below seem to presuppose that someone else than Daiwen read *War and Peace*, just like (8)a with *too* does, thus licensing the absence of *too* (or to put it differently, thus making *too* redundant)?

- (78) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the book too.
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the same book.

In a nutshell, I would like to argue that it follows from the hypothesis that an identical antecedent is required for the elided clausal complement of *same* to be licensed. In this sense, *same* and *too* thus share an anaphoricity property.

Concretely, recall that *too* in (78)a (cf. (12)), which scopes over the TP *Bao_F read the book*, requires a distinct, true antecedent, which belongs to the focus alternatives to this TP: *Daiwen read War and Peace* qualifies. As for *same* in (78)b, under Charnavel’s approach, it takes an elided comparative clause, which is licensed by identity with the matrix clause and focus on *Bao*; moreover, the implicit remnant subject is anaphorically resolved by the previous context.

- (79) a. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. [_{TP} Bao_F read the book] too.
b. Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao_F read the same book (*as X_{Daiwen} read wh-book*).

Ultimately, the presupposition triggered by *too* (i.e. someone else read the book) is identical to, and therefore entailed by the content of the comparative clause (*as someone else read*). This explains Mikkelsen & Hardt’s intuition that *same* incorporates *too*, without having to postulate incorporation of an ad hoc element (TOO, which as we saw behaves differently from *too*) in many elements (*same*, *different*, but also relational elements and comparatives). Indeed, degree comparatives like (34)c exhibit the same effect:

- (80) Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao_F read a longer book (*than X_{Daiwen} read d-long book*).

³ *Different* does not give rise to the same effects because due to its non-identical meaning, it cannot alternate with simpler alternatives. In particular, a simple anaphoric pronoun cannot compete with a DP involving *different*. In some cases, a *different* may seem similar to *another*. But first, both alternatives arguably have the same structural complexity, and second, as discussed in Charnavel (2015: section 3.2), *another*, unlike *different*, has a non-symmetrical meaning component, which makes both alternatives semantically non-equivalent.

In other words, the reason why *same* seems to license the absence of *too* as suggested by the contrast between (8)a and (8)b is not because *too* and *same* induce the same additive presupposition, even if they entail the same, anaphoric clausal content. In fact, we saw in (31) that *Maximize Presupposition!* overgenerates. Rather, we can assume (although we will have to leave the details for further research) that the contrast between (8)a and (8)b is due to some general discourse constraints on redundancy. The additive presupposition contributed by *too* or the anaphoric contribution of *same* are two ways, among others (see (31)), to make such redundancy relevant and thus felicitous.⁴

The hypothesis that *same* takes an elided comparative clause further explains why *same* behaves like *too* in (4)-(5)-(6) repeated below.

- (81) Daiwen didn't read *War and Peace*, #but she read the same book (*as X read wh-book*).
- (82) Daiwen praised *War and Peace*, #but Hien read the same book (*as X read wh-book*).
- (83) Daiwen caught a big fish #and she caught the same fish (*as X caught wh-fish*)
without any fishing equipment.

In (81), the elided comparative clause cannot contain a negation due to the identity condition on ellipsis (given that the matrix clause does not contain a negation), which makes it impossible for X to be anaphorically resolved as *Daiwen*. In (82) (with contrastive focus only on *Daiwen* and *Hien* as specified in Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024: fn. 15), the same identity conditions on ellipsis prevent the elided clause from containing the verb *praise*, with the same consequences. As for (83), the hypothesis of TOO incorporation predicts it to be infelicitous because the host and the antecedent are not distinct: according to Mikkelsen & Hardt, it is because they denote the same event. However, the comparative account seems to incorrectly predict it to be acceptable, as the identity condition can be satisfied in the elided comparative clause and the remnant subject can be reflexively interpreted (as in (43)). But crucially, Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024: fn. 17) acknowledge that the same example with *different* is also degraded contrary to their predictions (given the availability of DP scope with *different*). They thus attribute the infelicity of (83) with *different* to an independent factor, namely the need to make relevant the

⁴ Under analyses positing a definite operator heading comparative clauses (e.g., a MAX operator as in Rullmann 1995), the content of the comparative clause could be considered to be presuppositional. But even assuming so, tests of presupposition projection show that the proposition implied by *too* and the proposition implied by *same* do not have the same presuppositional status, further arguing against Mikkelsen & Hardt's analysis: in Abusch's (2010) terms, *too* behaves like a hard trigger, unlike *same* (or degree comparatives):

- (i) a. #I have no idea whether Lucy chose this scooter. But if Claire chose it too, they may swap them inadvertently.
- b. I have no idea whether Lucy chose this scooter. But if Claire chose the same scooter, they may swap them inadvertently.
- c. I have no idea whether Lucy chose this scooter. But if Claire chose a bigger scooter, they will fight.

That said, the behavior of *same* and *too* under negation in (ii) suggests that the reason why *same* appears to induce a presupposition in some cases is due to its anaphoricity property: in the absence of *as Claire* in (ii)b, the sentence is infelicitous due to the conditions on ellipsis requiring an identical antecedent; but the presence of *as Claire* allows the elided antecedent to be sentence-internal, thus suggesting that it is not presuppositional (although this may depend on the theory we adopt on presuppositions – but I leave a more thorough discussion of this issue for further research).

- (ii) a. #It is not the case that Lucy chose this scooter too. Nobody chose a scooter in the end.
- b. It is not the case that Lucy chose the same scooter #(as Claire). Nobody chose a scooter in the end.

What matters for our purposes is that whatever status is attributed to the proposition implied by *same* (in its implicit complement), it does not have the same (presuppositional) status as that implied by *too*.

modifier *without any fishing equipment*. In support of this, they offer the following modified example with *different*, which they judge felicitous:

- (84) Daiwen was using her big fishing pole. She caught a big fish. Then she caught a different fish without any fishing equipment. (Mikkelsen & Hardt 2024; fn. 17, (vi))

Now crucially, the same sentence with *same* also improves in felicity:

- (85) Daiwen was using her big fishing pole. She caught a big fish. Then she caught the same fish (again) without any fishing equipment.

Admittedly, (85) is not as felicitous as (84), but the difference is merely due to the particular choice of items and the fact that it is unusual to catch the same fish several times (although it is possible if you first release it). (86) more clearly shows that *same* behaves like *different* in this kind of sentences.

- (86) Daiwen was using her binoculars. She hit the furthest target. Then she hit {a different/the same} target with eyes closed.

Under Mikkelsen & Hardt's approach, the felicity of (86) with *same* has to come from the hypothesis that the host and the antecedent are distinct events. This hypothesis is explicit in Hardt & Mikkelsen (2015), but requires some adjustment under Mikkelsen & Hardt's (2024: 449) approach, which explicitly assumes that the hosts for TOO are restricted to DP or TP because these are the only categories to make truth-conditional claims (of existence, in the case of DP). But examples like (86) require more than appeal to truth conditional claims (i.e., events). Under Charnavel's approach, the infelicity of (83) (vs. the felicity of (86)) relates to the general observation that in cases where the implicit element in the complement of *same/different* is interpreted as a reflexive as in (52) repeated below, a contrast (e.g., in time) is required.

- (87) As compared to last week, each child is different (*from herself*) today.

This is independently observed with comparatives and relational terms:

- (88) As compared to last week, each critic watched a {different/longer} movie today.
(89) As compared to yesterday, the sky is {different/identical} today.

This is due to the fact that comparisons must be made across different items; if they don't differ in their participants, they must differ in their time. Just like *too*, comparatives require some contrast.

In sum, all facts suggesting that *same* behaves like *too* can thus be explained by the comparative account. The unavailability of *same* when the antecedent contains a negation or is not parallel (violating the contrastiveness condition of TOO under Mikkelsen & Hardt's account, cf. (15)b) derives from the identity conditions on the elided clause. The infelicity of *same* when the antecedent is identical to the host (violating the distinctness condition of TOO under Mikkelsen & Hardt's account, cf. (15)a) is due to the fact that comparative clauses require some contrast (the focused element) with respect to their matrix clause.

The comparative hypothesis also explains why co-occurrence of *too* and *same* is infelicitous in (33)a repeated in (90) below: *too* redundantly induces a presupposition that is identical to the content of the implicit comparative clause contributed by *same* (i.e., someone else than Bao read *War and Peace*). However, *too* is felicitous in (32)a repeated in (91), because the presupposition induced by *too* is different from the content of the elided comparative clause contributed by *same* (it includes it): *too* here presupposes that someone else than Li read the same book as Daiwen read.

(90) Daiwen read *War and Peace*. #Bao read the same book too.

(91) Daiwen read *War and Peace*. Bao read the same book. Li read the same book too.

We are thus now in a position to answer the general question that Mikkelsen & Hardt leave open at the end of their article: why do additive presuppositions usually attributed to particles like *too*, *also* or *as well*, also arise with some adjectives like *same* and *different*? What is the relevant lexical class triggering such presuppositions?

The answer suggested by the argumentation of the present paper is the following: adjectives like *same* or *different* do not trigger an additive presupposition like additive particles; but due to their relational and comparative nature, they can induce implicit complements which can entail the same content as the content of presuppositions triggered by additive particles. We can thus define the relevant class as the class of comparative and relational adjectives.⁵

3. Conclusion

In sum, my goal was to show in this reply article that while the specific additive analysis of *same* and *different* proposed by Mikkelsen & Hardt (2024) faces several challenges, the main ideas behind it are valid and can be derived using a comparative account such as Charnavel's (2015). The advantages of a comparative account over an additive account are threefold: the comparative account is more parsimonious in only requiring independently needed ingredients; it is empirically more adequate; and it provides a natural explanation for why *same* and *different*, as well as other adjectives, seem to behave like additive particles in some respects.

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⁵ As detailed in Charnavel (2015), comparatives and relational adjectives differ with respect to the type of complements they license, and this affects the range of readings they can trigger, as correctly predicted by the comparative account. *Same* and *different* can give rise to many readings because they can take both DP and CP complements (cf. phrasal and clausal comparatives) and because they are symmetrical. Relational adjectives that disallow CP complements or/and are not symmetrical cannot trigger all types of internal and external readings (those relying on clausal complements or/and a covert reciprocal element).

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